

1 Topological Spaces

Definition 1.1: Topology

Let X be any set. A topology T on X is a collection of subsets of X , which satisfies the following axioms.

- $\emptyset$ and X are both in T
- Closed under arbitrary unions
- Closed under finite intersections

The sets in T are called open sets.

A set X equipped w/ a topology is called a topological space.

Example:

text

- X is any set, $T = P(X)$. (discrete topology)
- X is any set, $T = \{\emptyset, X\}$. (indiscrete topology)
- $X = \{a, b, c\}$, $T = \{\emptyset, X, \{a, b\}\}$
- $X = \mathbb{R}$, $T = \{\emptyset, X\} \cup \{U \subset \mathbb{R} \mid \text{for all } x \in U, \exists \epsilon > 0 \text{ s.t. } (x - \epsilon, x + \epsilon) \subset U\}$
- X is any set, let T be the collection of subsets $U \subseteq X$ s.t. either $U = \emptyset$, or $X \setminus U$ is finite.

Proposition 1.2

This is a topology.

Proof.

- $\emptyset, \mathbb{R}$ are both open
- Suppose $\{U_j\}_{j \in J}$ is a collection of open sets in $\mathbb{R}$
Let $x \in \bigcup_{j \in J} U_j$. Then $x \in U_j$ for some $j \in J$.
 U_j is open thus there is an open interval in U_j containing x . So it is in the arbitrary union
- Let U, V be open subsets of $\mathbb{R}$

Let $x \in U \cap V$. Because U, V open there are intervals $(a, b) \subset U$, $(c, d) \subset V$ s.t. $x \in (a, b) \cap (c, d)$
 $(a, b) \cap (c, d) = (\max(a, c), \min(b, d)) \subset U \cap V$. Thus, x is in this interval thus $U \cap V$ is open.

Proposition 1.3

The "cofinite" topology is a topology.

Proof.

- The empty set is open, and $X \setminus X = \emptyset$ is finite, so $X \in T$
- Consider sets $\{U_j\}_{j \in J}$ s.t. $U_j \in T$
 First: consider the case for some j' , $X \setminus U_{j'}$ is finite.
 $X \setminus \bigcup_{j \in J} U_j = \bigcap_{j \in J} X \setminus U_j \subset X \setminus U_{j'}$. So the arbitrary union is finite.
 Second: If the first case does not occur, then $U_j = \emptyset$ for all $j \in J$, so the union is the empty set.
- Let $U, V \in T$. If either is the empty set then $U \cap V = \emptyset \in T$, so assume that both are not empty. Then consider $X \setminus (U \cap V) = (X \setminus U) \cup (X \setminus V)$, so it is a union of two finite sets which is finite thus $U \cap V \in T$

Definition 1.4: Closed Set

If X is a set with topology T , then the complement of an open set in X is called a closed set.

Example

If T is cofinite topology, a set in $A \subseteq X$ is closed $\iff$ either finite or $A = X$

IMPORTANT: Some sets are neither open nor closed. Some sets are both closed and open.

2 Basis for a topology

Definition 2.1: Basis

Let X be a set. A collection β of subsets of X is a basis for a topology if:

- every $x \in X$ is in some $B \in \beta$
- If $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$ for $B_1, B_2 \in \beta$
then: $\exists B_3 \in \beta$ s.t. $x \in B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2$

The topology generated by β is the collection T of subsets defined by:

$$U \in T \iff \text{for every } x \in U, \exists B \in \beta \text{ s.t. } x \in B \subseteq U$$

Example

$X = \mathbb{R}$, β = set of open intervals in $\mathbb{R}$

$X = \mathbb{R}^n$, β = set of open balls $B(x, r) = \{y \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid d(x, y) < r\}$

Check that the second example is actually a basis for a topology

- every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ lies in some open ball. $x \in B(x, 1)$
- Assume $x \in B_1 \cap B_2 = B(y_1, r_1) \cap B(y_2, r_2)$
Set $r_3 = \min(r_1 - d(x, y_1), r_2 - d(x, y_2))$
Consider the ball $B_3 = B(x, r_3)$. Let $z \in B_3$.
 $d(z, y_1) \leq d(x, y_1) + d(z, x) < d(x, y_1) + r_3 \leq d(x, y_1) + r_1 - d(x, y_1) = r_1$
So $z \in B(y_1, r_1) = B_1$ do the same proof for B_2 thus $z \in B_1 \cap B_2$ thus $B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2$

Proposition 2.2

This is actually a topology on X .

Proof.

- $\emptyset \in T$ vacuously, and $X \in T$ comes from first basis axiom.
- Suppose $\{u_j\}_{j \in J}$ of sets in T .
Let $x \in \bigcup_{j \in J} u_j$. Thus $x \in u_{j'}$ for some $j' \in J$, so $\exists B_{j'} \in \beta$ s.t. $x \in B_{j'} \subseteq u_{j'}$ thus $x \in B_{j'} \subseteq \bigcup_{j \in J} u_j$. This shows $\bigcup_{j \in J} u_j \in T$
- Suppose $x \in u_1 \cap u_2$ for $u_1, u_2 \in T$. Then $x \in B_1, B_2$ for sets $B_1, B_2 \in \beta$ s.t. $B_1 \subseteq u_1$

and $B_2 \subseteq u_2$ thus $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$. By the second axiom thus implies $\exists B_3 \in \beta$. Thus $x \in B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2 \subseteq u_1 \cap u_2 \in T$

Remark.

Every topology is a basis for itself.

Proposition 2.3

Let X be a set, let β be a basis for topology T . The sets in T are precisely the sets of the form

$$\bigcup_{j \in J} B_j$$

for $\{B_j\}_{j \in J}$ collection of sets in β

Proof.

- Every set of this form is in T :

$$x \in \bigcup_{j \in J} B_j, \text{ then } x \in B_{j'} \subset \bigcup_{j \in J} B_j$$

- Every set in T has the form:

$$\text{Let } U \in T. \text{ Then for every } x \in U, \text{ there is a } B_x \in \beta \text{ s.t. } B_x \subset U \implies U = \bigcup_{x \in U} B_x$$

Decomposition is NOT in general unique.

Basis sets are always open.

2.1 Comparing Topologies

Definition 2.4: Finer

If T_1, T_2 are topologies on the same set X , we say that T_1 , is finer than T_2 if $T_1 \supseteq T_2$. Also, T_2 is coarser than T_1

Proposition 2.5

Let β, β' be bases for topologies T, T' on X . Then $T \subseteq T'$ (T' is finer than T) if and only if every $x \in X$, and every $B \in \beta$ containing x , $\exists$ some $B' \in \beta'$ s.t. $x \in B' \subset B$

Example

$X = \mathbb{R}^n$, let β be the set of open boxes in $\mathbb{R}^n$: sets of the form $(a_1, b_1) \times (a_2, b_2) \times \cdots \times (a_n, b_n)$

This is a basis. It generates the same standard topology on $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Example

Let $X = \mathbb{R}$. Consider collections of half-open intervals in $\mathbb{R}$: $[a, b), (a, b]$.

Claim: this is a basis for a topology.

This is not the same as the std. topology on $\mathbb{R}$

This is finer than the std. topology.

3 Examples of topological spaces

Example 3.1: Order Topology

Let X be a set with the order relation $<$. For $a < b$ in X , define intervals:

$$(a, b) = \{x \in X \mid a < x < b\}$$

$$[a, b) = \{x \in X \mid a \leq x < b\}$$

Similar for $(a, b], [a, b]$

Let β be the set of all intervals in X of the forms:

- (a, b) for $a < b$ in X .
- $[a_0, b)$ where a_0 is the smallest element of X .(if it exists).
- $(a, b_0]$ where b_0 is the largest element of X .(if it exists).

Proposition 3.2

This is a basis for a topology on X .

This is called the order topology on X .

Example

Standard topology on $\mathbb{R}$ is order topology, on $\mathbb{R}$

Example 3.3: Product Topology

Let X, Y be topological spaces.

Let β be a collection of sets:

$$\{U \times V \mid U \text{ open in } X, V \text{ open in } Y\}$$

If β_1 is a basis for topology on X , and β_2 is a basis for topology on Y , then

$$\{B \times C \mid B \in \beta_1, C \in \beta_2\}$$

is a basis for the product topology.

Proposition 3.4

This is a basis for a topology.

This is called the product topology on $X \times Y$

Example

The product topology is std topology on $\mathbb{R}$

This definition is valid for products of pairs of sets.

Lemma 3.5

Suppose X is a topological space. Let C be a collection of open subsets satisfying:

- for each open set $U \subseteq X$ and each $x \in U$, $\exists c \in C$ s.t. $x \in c \subseteq U$

Then, C is a basis for top. on X .

Proof.

Check C is a basis.

- Every $x \in X$ in some $c \in C$. X is open, so there exists c s.t. $x \in c \subseteq X$
- If $c_1, c_2 \in C$, then for any $x \in c_1 \cap c_2$, $\exists c_3 \in C$ s.t. $x \in c_3 \subseteq c_1 \cap c_2$.
Follows from the fact that c_1, c_2 are open which implies $c_1 \cap c_2$ is open so can find c_3

Check: C generates same topology T on X .

First, suppose U is open in T . By assumption for all $x \in U$, there exists $c \in C$ s.t. $x \in c \subseteq U$, so U is open in the topology generated by C .

If U is open in topology generated by C . Then U is a union of sets in C . But every $c \in C$ is open in T , so union U is also open in T . ■

Definition 3.6: Metric

Let X be a set. A function $d : X \times X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is a metric if it satisfies:

- $d(x, y) = 0 \iff x = y$
- $d(x, y) = d(y, x) \quad \forall x, y \in X$
- $d(x, y) + d(y, z) \geq d(x, z) \quad \forall x, y, z \in X$

Example 3.7: Metric Topology

A set X equipped with a metric d is a metric space.

Let β be the set of all metric balls:

$$B_d(x, r) = \{y \in X \mid d(x, y) < r\} \quad \text{for } x \in X, r > 0$$

Proposition 3.8

This is a basis for a topology

Definition 3.9: Metrizable

A topological space X is called metrizable if $\exists$ metric d on X inducing topology on X .

Remark.

There could be more than one metric inducing the same topology.

Example 3.10: Subspace Topology

Let X be a set with topology $\mathcal{T}$. Let $Y \subseteq X$.

Thus subspace topology on Y is the collection of sets:

$$\{U \cap Y \mid U \in \mathcal{T}\}$$

Proposition 3.11: $\mathcal{T}$

is a topology on Y .

We call Y a subspace of topology X .

Example

Suppose (X, d) is a metric space. $Y \subseteq X$.

The function d is also a metric on Y . We have 2 topologies on Y :

- Subspace topology as a subspace of X with metric topology.
- Metric topology on Y

Proposition 3.12

These two topologies are the same.

Proof.

Let $\mathcal{T}_{\subseteq}$ is subspace topology, and $\mathcal{T}_d$ is metric topology on Y .

$\mathcal{T}_d$ has a basis $\beta_d = \{B_d(y, r) \cap Y \mid y \in Y, r > 0\}$

$\mathcal{T}_{\subseteq}$ has a basis $\beta_{\subseteq} = \{B_d(x, r) \cap Y \mid x \in X, r > 0\}$

Subspace Basis is just X 's basis but intersected with Y .

Easy to see that $\beta_d \subseteq \beta_{\subseteq}$ thus $T_d \subseteq T_{\subseteq}$

Let $y \in B \in \beta_{\subseteq}$, so $y \in B_d(x, r) \cap Y$ for some $x \in X, r > 0$

Using the triangle inequality, find some $r' > 0$ s.t.

$$B_d(y, r') \subseteq B_d(x, r)$$

Then

$$B_d(y, r') \cap Y \subseteq B_d(x, r) \cap Y$$

Example

Let X, Y be nonempty topological spaces. Equip $X \times Y$ with the product topology. For each $y \in Y$, the set $X \times \{y\}$ is a subspace of $X \times Y$, and $X \times \{y\}$ is in bijection with X . Two topologies on X :

- Original topology
- Subspace topology on $X \times \{y\}$ identified with X .

Proposition 3.13

These two topologies are the same.

Example

Let X be a set with an order $<$. Let $Y \subseteq X$. Then $<$ gives an order relation of Y . Two topologies on Y :

- Order topology on Y
- Subspace topology

Proposition 3.14

These do not have to agree!.

Proof.

Let $X = \mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R}$, with dictionary order and $Y = [0, 1] \times [0, 1]$. Consider $\{1/2\} \times [0, 1]$: This is open in the subspace topology since $\{1/2\} \times (-\epsilon, 1 + \epsilon)$ is an interval in X . This is not open on the order topology since it has the endpoints. ■

4 Continuous Functions

Definition 4.1: Continuous Function

Let X, Y be topological spaces. A function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous if, for every open $U \subseteq Y$, the set $f^{-1}(U)$ is open in X .

Definition 4.2: Homeomorphism

A bijection $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is called a homeomorphism if it is continuous and $f^{-1} : Y \rightarrow X$ is also continuous.

Equivalently: If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is a bijection, then it induces a bijection $P(X) \rightarrow P(Y)$. If X, Y are topological spaces, a bijection $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is a homeomorphism if it identifies topology on X with the topology on Y .

Example

Let $X = \{a, b\}$ and $Y = \{c, d\}$. Let $\mathcal{T}_X = \{\emptyset, X, \{a\}\}$. Let $\mathcal{T}_Y = \{\emptyset, Y\}$. Consider $f : X \rightarrow Y$ s.t. it is a bijection this is clearly continuous since $f^{-1}(Y) = (X)$. However for $f^{-1} : Y \rightarrow X$ this is not continuous.

Definition 4.3: Embedding

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$, let $Z \subseteq Y$ be the subspace $f(X)$. If $f : X \rightarrow Z$ is a homeomorphism, then we say that f is a topological embedding.

This is not the same as a continuous injective map.

Example

Let $X = [0, 2\pi)$, $f : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ given by $f(t) = (\cos(t), \sin(t))$.

Proposition 4.4

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a map between topological spaces X, Y .

$$f \text{ is continuous} \iff f^{-1}(B) \text{ is open for every } B \text{ in a basis for } Y.$$

Proof.

- $(\implies)$: immediate by the fact that basis sets are open.
- $(\impliedby)$: use fact that every open set in Y is a union of basis sets. ■

Definition 4.5: Neighborhood

Let X be a topological space, $x \in X$. A neighborhood of x is any open set $U \subset X$ containing x .

Definition 4.6: Continuous at a Point

A map $f : X \rightarrow Y$ between topological spaces is continuous at $x \in X$ if, for every neighborhood V of $f(x)$, there is a neighborhood U of x s.t. $f(U) \subseteq V$.

Proposition 4.7

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a map between topological spaces then the following are equivalent.

- (i) f is continuous
- (ii) f is continuous at every $x \in X$
- (iii) $f^{-1}(C)$ is closed for every closed $C \subseteq Y$

Proof.

(i) $\iff$ (iii) : Let $U \subseteq Y$ be open.

Thus, $X \setminus f^{-1}(U) = f^{-1}(Y \setminus U) = f^{-1}(Y \setminus U)$

Thus, $f^{-1}(U)$ is open $\iff f^{-1}(Y \setminus U)$ is closed.

(i) $\implies$ (ii) : Let $x \in X$, let V be a neighborhood of $f(x)$. Then $f^{-1}(V)$ is open, so it's a neighborhood of x and $f(f^{-1}(V)) \subseteq V$.

(ii) $\implies$ (i) : Let $V \subseteq Y$. For each $x \in f^{-1}(V)$, $f(x) \in V$, so there is a neighborhood U_x of x s.t. $f(U_x) \subseteq V$, meaning $U_x \subseteq f^{-1}(V)$.

Thus, $f^{-1}(V) = \bigcup_{x \in f^{-1}(V)} U_x$, so $f^{-1}(V)$ is open. ■

Definition 4.8: Continuous on Metric Spaces

Let X, Y be metric spaces. A function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous at $x \in X$ if $\forall \epsilon > 0$, $\exists \delta > 0$ s.t. whenever $d(x, y) < \delta$, then $d(f(x), f(y)) < \epsilon$.

Also the same as, for every ball $B(f(x), \epsilon)$, $\exists \delta$ s.t. $f(B(x, \delta)) \subseteq B(f(x), \epsilon)$.

Proposition 4.9

These definition of continuity are equivalent when X, Y are metric spaces.

Lemma 4.10

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y, g : Y \rightarrow Z$ be continuous between topological spaces. Then $g \circ f$ is continuous.

Proof.

Let $U \subseteq Z$ be open then $(g \circ f)^{-1}(U) = f^{-1}(g^{-1}(U))$. $g^{-1}(U)$ is open, since g is continuous then $f^{-1}(g^{-1}(U))$ is open, since f is continuous. ■

Proposition 4.11

Let X be a topological space, $A \subseteq X$ a subspace then the inclusion $f : A \hookrightarrow X$ is continuous.

Proof.

Let $U \subseteq X$ be open, thus $f^{-1}(U) = U \cap A$ is open in A by definition of subspace topology. ■

Proposition 4.12

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a map between topological spaces, suppose that $f(X) \subseteq Z$ for some subspace $Z \subseteq Y$. Then $f : X \rightarrow Z$ is continuous $\iff f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous.

Proposition 4.13

If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous, and A is a subspace of X then $f|_A : A \rightarrow Y$ is continuous.

Definition 4.14: Open Covering

Let X be a topological space. An open covering of X is a collection $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ of open sets s.t. $X = \bigcup_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha$.

Proposition 4.15

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$, let $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be an open covering. Then f is continuous $\iff$ each restriction $f|_{U_\alpha}$ is continuous.

Proposition 4.16

Suppose X is a union of finitely many closed subsets $C_1, \dots, C_n$.
Then a map $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous $\iff$ each restriction $f|_{C_1} : C_1 \rightarrow Y$ is continuous.

Let $\mathbb{R}$ have std. top.

- Addition
- Multiplication
- Division (x/y) for $y \neq 0$

These are continuous.

Lemma 4.17

If $f_1 : X_1 \rightarrow Y_1$, $f_2 : X_2 \rightarrow Y_2$ are continuous maps of top spaces, then the map $X_1 \times X_2 \rightarrow Y_1 \times Y_2$ given by $(u, v) \mapsto (f_1(u), f_2(v))$ is continuous.

5 Closures of Sets in Topological Spaces

Definition 5.1: Closure of a set

Let X be a topological spaces, $A \subseteq X$. The closure of A in X , denoted $\bar{A}$, is the intersection of all closed subsets of X containing A . (The "smallest" closed subset containing A)

Definition 5.2: Interior of a set

The interior of A is the unions of all open subsets contained in A .

$$\text{Int}(A) = X \setminus \overline{X \setminus A}$$

Theorem 5.3

Let X be a top. space, let $A \subseteq X$. Then $x \in \bar{A} \iff$ every neighborhood of x intersects A .

Proof.

This is the same as $x \notin \bar{A} \iff$ there is some neighborhood of x which does not intersect $A \iff$ there exists a closed subset of X containing A , and not x .

This is equivalent to $x \notin \bar{A}$ since it is not in some closed set containing A . ■

Corollary 5.4

Suppose β is a basis for topology on X . Then $x \in \bar{A} \iff$ every $B \in \beta$ containing x intersects A .

Proof.

($\implies$) this is proved from the last theorem since basis sets are open.

($\impliedby$) Let U be a neighborhood of x . Then, there is some $B \in \beta$ s.t. $x \in B \subseteq U$. Know B intersects A , so U also intersects A . This means every neighborhood of x intersects A , so $x \in \bar{A}$ ■

Example: Let $X = \mathbb{R}^2$, let $A = B(0,1)$ then $\bar{A} = \bar{B}(0,1) = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid d(0,x) \leq 1\}$

First, supposed $x \notin \bar{B}(0,1)$. Then $d(0,x) = r > 1$. Using the triangle inequality, can see that $B(x, r-1)$ does not intersect $B(0,1)$. Thus, $x \notin \bar{B}(0,1)$.

Suppose $x \in \bar{B}(0,1)$. Then $d(0,x) \leq 1$. Fix $\epsilon > 0$. Consider the point $y = (1-\epsilon)x$. Thus, $d(x,y) = d(x, (1-\epsilon)x) = d(x, x - \epsilon x) = d(0, -\epsilon x)$ is given by $\|\epsilon x\| = \epsilon \|x\| \leq \epsilon$

$y \in B(x, 2\epsilon)$. Also, $d(0, y) = d((1 - \epsilon)x, 0) = (1 - \epsilon)||x|| \leq 1 - \epsilon < 1$, so $y \in B(0, 1)$. Thus, every ball about x intersects $B(0, 1)$, so $x \in \overline{B(0, 1)}$ ■

Remark.

- $\bar{\bar{A}} = \bar{A}$
- A is closed $\iff A = \bar{A}$

Definition 5.5: Accumulation Point

Let A be a subset of a space X . An accumulation point of A is a point $x \in X$ s.t. every neighborhood of x intersects A in a point not equal to x .

Example

Every point in $\mathbb{R}$ is an accumulation point of $\mathbb{Q}$.

No points in $\mathbb{R}$ are accumulation points in $\mathbb{N}$.

If $A = \{1/n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}\}$, then 0 is the only accumulation point of A . ■

Theorem 5.6

Let X be a topological space, let $A \subseteq X$, and A' be the set of all accumulation points of A . Then $\bar{A} = A \cup A'$.

Proof.

Show: $A \cup A' \subseteq \bar{A}$

Know: $A \subseteq \bar{A}$. So let $x \in A'$

Then every neighborhood of x intersects A , so $x \in \bar{A}$.

Show: $\bar{A} \subseteq A \cup A'$. Let $x \in \bar{A}$. If $x \in A$, we are done. So, assume $x \notin A$. Know every neighborhood of x intersects A . Since $x \notin A$, this neighborhood must actually intersect $A \setminus \{x\} = A$ ■

Definition 5.7: Converges

Let x_n be a sequence in a space X . We say that x_n converges to $x \in X$ if, for all neighborhoods U of x , $\exists N \in \mathbb{N}$ s.t. $x_n \in U$ for all $n \geq N$.

Example

Let $X = \{a, b, c\}$. Let $\mathcal{T} = \{\emptyset, X, \{a, b\}\}$.

Consider the sequence $x_n = a$ converges to a , since it is in every neighborhood of a , but

it also converges to b since x_n is in every neighborhood of b . It also converges to c since x_n is in every neighborhood of c . ■

Example

If X is a space with indiscrete topology then every sequence converges to every point in X . ■

Definition 5.8: Hausdorff Space

A topological space is called Hausdorff if it satisfies the following:

- For every pair of distinct points x_1 and x_2 , there are neighborhoods U_1 of x_1 and U_2 of x_2 s.t. $U_1 \cap U_2 = \emptyset$.

Theorem 5.9

Let x_n be a sequence in a Hausdorff space. Then x_n converges to at most one point.

Proof.

Suppose x_n converges to x . Let y be any point distinct from x .

WTS: x_n does not converge to y .

Fix neighborhoods U of x and V of y s.t. $U \cap V = \emptyset$. For all but finitely many n , $x_n \in U$.

This means $x_n \in V$ for only finitely many n , so x_n cannot converge to y . ■

Theorem 5.10

Let X be a Hausdorff space. Then any singleton $\{x\}$ is a closed subset of X .

Proof.

WTS: $X \setminus \{x\}$ is open.

For each $y \in X \setminus \{x\}$, there is a neighborhood U_y of x and V_y of y s.t. $U_y \cap V_y = \emptyset$. In particular $V_y \subseteq X \setminus \{x\}$. Thus:

$$X \setminus \{x\} = \bigcup_{y \in X \setminus \{x\}} U_y$$

is open. ■

In that proof we really only needed: for every pair of distinct points $x, y \in X$, there exists a neighborhood U of x not containing y . (T_1 property)

Proposition 5.11

Every metrizable space X is Hausdorff.

Proof.

Let $x, y \in X$. Set $r = d(x, y)$, then by the triangle inequality, $B(x, r/2) \cap B(y, r/2) = \emptyset$. ■

Proposition 5.12

Let X be a top. space, let $A \subseteq X$. Suppose x_n is a sequence in A , and $x_n \rightarrow x$ in X . Then $x \in \bar{A}$

Proof.

Let U be a neighborhood of x . Then $x_n \in U$ for all but finitely many n , so $U \cap A \neq \emptyset \implies x \in \bar{A}$ ■

Proposition 5.13

Assume X is metrizable. Then, every $x \in \bar{A}$ is a limit of a sequence x_n for $x_n \in A$

Proof.

Let $x \in \bar{A}$. For every $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the ball $B(x, 1/n)$ intersects A . So, let $x_n \in A \cap B(x, 1/n)$. If U is any neighborhood of x , then U contains $B(x, \epsilon)$ for some $\epsilon > 0$. Then $x_n \in B(x, \epsilon)$ whenever $n > 1/\epsilon$. Thus, $x_n \rightarrow x$. ■

Theorem 5.14

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a map of topological spaces. Then
 f is continuous $\implies$ for any sequence x_n in X converging to a point $x \in X$ we have $f(x_n) \rightarrow f(x)$
 If X is metrizable $\iff$ holds.

6 Quotient Topology

Let X be a top. space, let $\sim$ be an equivalence relation on X . There is a surjective map $\rho : X \rightarrow X/\sim$ $x \mapsto [x]$

$X/\sim$ is the set of equivalence classes with respect to $\sim$.

Definition 6.1: Quotient Topology

The quotient topology on $X/\sim$ is the collection of sets $U \subseteq X/\sim$ s.t. $\rho^{-1}(U)$ is open in X .

This is the finest topology on $X/\sim$ s.t. $\rho : X \rightarrow X/\sim$ is continuous.

Definition 6.2: Quotient Map

In general, if X, Y are top. spaces, a surjective map $\rho : X \rightarrow Y$ is a quotient map if it satisfies:

$$U \subseteq Y \text{ open} \iff \rho^{-1}(U) \text{ open}$$

When this occurs, Y can be identified homeomorphically to a quotient space for X , under the relation $x_1 \sim x_2 \iff \rho(x_1) = \rho(x_2)$

If X, Y are top. spaces, can form disjoint union $X \sqcup Y$. Topology on $X \sqcup Y$ is the collection $U \sqcup V$ for $U \subseteq X, V \subseteq Y$ open.

Suppose X_1, X_2 spaces, $Y_1 \subseteq X_1, Y_2 \subseteq X_2$ subspaces, $\phi : Y_1 \rightarrow Y_2$ is a homeomorphism.

Can form space $X_1 \sqcup_{\phi} X_2 = X_1 \sqcup X_2 / \sim_{\phi}$

$\sim_{\phi}$ is relation given by: $x \sim_{\phi} x$ and $y \sim_{\phi} \phi(y)$ and $\phi(y) \sim_{\phi} y$ for every $y \in Y_1$

Theorem 6.3

Suppose $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is map, and $\sim$ is an equivalence relation. There is a map $X/\sim \rightarrow Y$ is $f(x) = f(y)$ whenever $x \sim y$

If $X/\sim$ has the quotient topology, then f is continuous $\iff f' : X/\sim \rightarrow Y$ is continuous.

7 Product Spaces (revisited)

Let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be a collection of sets. Can form Cartesian product $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$.

If $X_\alpha = X$, denoted $X^J \iff \text{map: } J \rightarrow X$

If each X_α top spaces, first guess for topology on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$

Definition 7.1: Box topology

Topology generated by the basis $\prod_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha$ s.t. each U_α open in X_α .

We have natural maps associated to product:

$$\pi_\alpha : \prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha \rightarrow X_\alpha$$

for each $\alpha \in J$ called projection maps.

Definition 7.2: Product Topology

If $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ family of top. spaces, product topology on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is the coarsest topology s.t. all projections are continuous.

This is in general **NOT** the same as box topology.

A subbasis for product topology is collection of all sets of the form $\pi_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha)$ for U_α open in X_α .

Each $\pi_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha)$ is a set of the form $\prod_{\beta \in J} U_\beta$, where all U_β for $\alpha \neq \beta$ are X_β .

Intersection of finitely many elements in subbasis looks like $\prod_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha$, where $U_\alpha = X_\alpha$ for all but finitely many α .

Sets of this form are a basis for product topology. No way to write a set of the form $\prod_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha$

where $U_\alpha \subsetneq X_\alpha$ for all α as a union of these basis elements. This implies box topology is finer than product topology.

Let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be a family of spaces, for each $\alpha \in J$, let $f_\alpha : Y \rightarrow X_\alpha$ be a map for some spaces.

Defines a map $f : Y \rightarrow \prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ by $f(y) = (f_\alpha(y))_{\alpha \in J}$

Proposition 7.3

f is continuous with respect to product topology on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha \iff$ every f_α is continuous.

Proof.

$\implies$: By definition of product topology π_α is continuous, and $f_\alpha = \pi_\alpha \circ f$, so this is continuous.

$\impliedby$: Suffices to prove that $f^{-1}(U)$ is open for every U of the form $\pi_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha)$ for some $\alpha \in J$, $U_\alpha \subseteq X_\alpha$ open.

$$f^{-1}(U) = f^{-1}(\pi_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha)) = f_\alpha^{-1}(U_\alpha)$$

open since f_α is continuous. ■

7.1 Topologies on $\mathbb{R}^J$, where J is infinite

Proposition 7.4

Let (X, d) be a metric spaces. The function $\bar{d} : X \times X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ by $\bar{d}(x, y) = \min(d(x, y), 1)$ is a metric on X , induces same topology as d .

Definition 7.5: Diameter

The Diameter of a metric space (X, d) is $\sup\{d(x, y)\}$ for all $x, y \in X$

Definition 7.6: Uniform Metric

Let J be an index set. Define metric $\bar{\rho}$ on $\mathbb{R}^J$ by

$$\bar{\rho}(x, y) = \sup_{\alpha \in J} \bar{d}(x_\alpha, y_\alpha)$$

Induces uniform topology.

When J is finite this is the same topology as product topology on $\mathbb{R}^n$

Otherwise: Uniform Topology lies strictly between the product and box topologies on $\mathbb{R}^J$.

7.1.1 Product Topology on $\mathbb{R}^\omega$

Theorem 7.7

The function $D : \mathbb{R}^\omega \times \mathbb{R}^\omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ given by

$$D(x, y) = \sup_{i \in \mathbb{N}} \frac{\bar{d}(x_i, y_i)}{i}$$

is a metric on $\mathbb{R}^\omega$ which induces product topology.

Fix ball $B_D(x, r)$. Choose $N \in \mathbb{N}$ s.t. $1/N < r$. Then $B_{\bar{d}}(x_1, r) \times B_{\bar{d}}(x_2, r) \times \dots, B_{\bar{d}}(x_N, r) \times \mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R} \times \dots$ is open in product topology. It's contained in $B_D(x, r)$, since each y in the product satisfies:

$$\bar{d}(x_i, y_i)/i \leq \bar{d}(x_i, y_i) < r \text{ if } i \leq N$$

$$\bar{d}(x_i, y_i) \leq 1/N < r \text{ if } i > N$$

8 Connectedness

Definition 8.1: Disconnected

Let X be a topological space. X is disconnected if there exists open disjoint non-empty $U, V \subseteq X$ s.t. $X = U \sqcup V$. U, V are called a separation of X .

Definition 8.2: Connected

If such a decomposition does not exist, X is connected.

Proposition 8.3

X is connected if and only if $X, \emptyset$ are the only closed and open sets

Proof.

By definition of disconnected U, V will be closed and open, so if there is not this disjoint union meaning there is no other closed and open spaces. ■

Example

A disjoint union of two or more top. spaces is disconnected $X, Y, X \sqcup Y$ is the separation. ■

Example: Connected Spaces

X with the indiscrete topology is connected.

A space containing one point is connected.

Let X be a set and $p \in X$. Let the open sets be $\emptyset$ and $A \subseteq X$ s.t. $p \in A$. X is connected. (it has no disjoint open sets at all.)

$\mathbb{R}$ and intervals and rays in $\mathbb{R}$ are connected. ■

Example: Disconnected Spaces

X with the discrete topology, $|X| \geq 2$ is disconnected.

Let $x \in X$. Then $\{x\}$ is open, and $X \setminus \{x\}$ is open. So $\{x\} \sqcup X \setminus \{x\}$ is a separation of X .

$[0, 1) \cup (1, 2] \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is disconnected. ■

Proposition 8.4

Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a continuous map and suppose X is connected. Then $f(X)$ is connected.

Proof.

Assume it is not connected s.t. $f(X) = (U \cap f(X)) \sqcup (V \cap f(X))$ for U, V open/closed in Y . Then $f^{-1}(U)$ and $f^{-1}(V)$ is open/closed. Thus, $f^{-1}(U) \sqcup f^{-1}(U)^c = X$. Thus, X is disconnected which is a contradiction. ■

Corollary 8.5

Let X be connected and let $X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a continuous map. Then if $a, b \in f(X), a < b$, the whole interval $[a, b] \subseteq f(X)$

Proof.

Let $r \in (a, b)$ and suppose $r \notin f(X)$. Then $f(X) \subseteq (-\infty, r) \cup (r, \infty)$. But in that case, $f^{-1}(-\infty, r)$ and $f^{-1}(r, \infty)$ are open and nonempty, disjoint and cover X . Which contradicts X being connected. ■

Definition 8.6: Linearly Ordered Continuum

Let L be a linearly ordered set satisfying:

- L has a least upper bound property
- If $x, y \in L, x < y \implies \exists r \in L, x < r < y$

Definition 8.7: Convex

$Y \subseteq L$ is convex if whenever $x, y \in Y$ and $r \in L, x < r < y \implies r \in Y$

Theorem 8.8

Equip L with the order topology. Then any convex subset Y of L is connected. "Intervals"

Proof.

Suppose Y is not connected s.t. $Y = A \sqcup B$, for A, B nonempty, disjoint, open in Y . WLOG let $a \in A, b \in B$ s.t. $a < b$ since Y is convex $[a, b] \subseteq Y$. Then $[a, b] \cap A$ and $[a, b] \cap B$ are open in $[a, b]$, disjoint, nonempty, so $[a, b]$ is disconnected. Let $c = \sup [a, b] \cap A$. This exists, because $[a, b] \cap A$ is bounded by b , and sup exists by least upper bound property. Note that $c \in [a, b]$ since $x \leq b$ for all $x \in [a, b]$ we know that $c \leq b$ thus $c \in [a, b]$

First, assume $c \in B$. Since $B \cap [a, b]$ is open in $[a, b]$, there has to exist a $d < c$ s.t. $(d, c] \subseteq B$ we can do this the fact that B is open, so we can find a tiny interval around c . But, because A is disjoint from B , $(d, c]$ is disjoint from A . Then, d is a better upper bound for $[a, b] \cap A$, so this is a contradiction.

Second, assume $c \in A$. Then because A is open we have $[c, e) \subseteq A$. By the properties of L , there is some $f \in (c, e)$. Then $f \in A \cap [a, b]$, but $f > c$. Then c is not an upper bound for $A \cap [a, b]$.

Therefore, $[a, b]$ does not have a separation, and thus is connected. ■

Lemma 8.9

If Y is a connected subspace of a space X . If C, D gives a separation of X , either $Y \subseteq C$ or $Y \subseteq D$.

Proof.

$C \cap Y$ is open in Y , $D \cap Y$ is open in Y . Then at least one of $C \cap Y$, $D \cap Y$ is empty so $Y \subseteq C \cap Y$ or $Y \subseteq D \cap Y$. This is because if they are both non empty then $Y = C \cap Y \cup D \cap Y$ then this is a contradiction of Y being connected. ■

Proposition 8.10

Suppose A connected subspace of X . Let $B \subseteq X$ be a set with $A \subseteq B \subseteq \bar{A}$. Then B is connected.

Proof.

Suppose B is not connected. Then $B = (C \cap B) \cup (D \cap B)$ for open sets C, D with $(C \cap D) \cap B = \emptyset$

Since A is connected, WLOG $A \subseteq C \cap B$ thus $\bar{A} \subseteq \overline{C \cap B}$.

Since $C \cap B \subseteq X \setminus D$ which is closed. So $\overline{C \cap B} \subseteq X \setminus D$. Thus $(\overline{C \cap B}) \cap (D \cap B) = \emptyset$.

Since $B \subseteq \bar{A} \subseteq \overline{C \cap B}$ this means that $B \cap (D \cap B) = \emptyset$, contradicts that $D \cap B, C \cap B$ is a separation of B since $D \cap B$ is empty. ■

8.1 Path Connectivity

Definition 8.11: Path

A path is a continuous map $[a, b] \rightarrow X$.

Definition 8.12: Path-Connected

X is path-connected if, for any two points $x, y \in X$, then there is a path $f : [a, b] \rightarrow X$ s.t. $f(a) = x, f(b) = y$.

Proposition 8.13

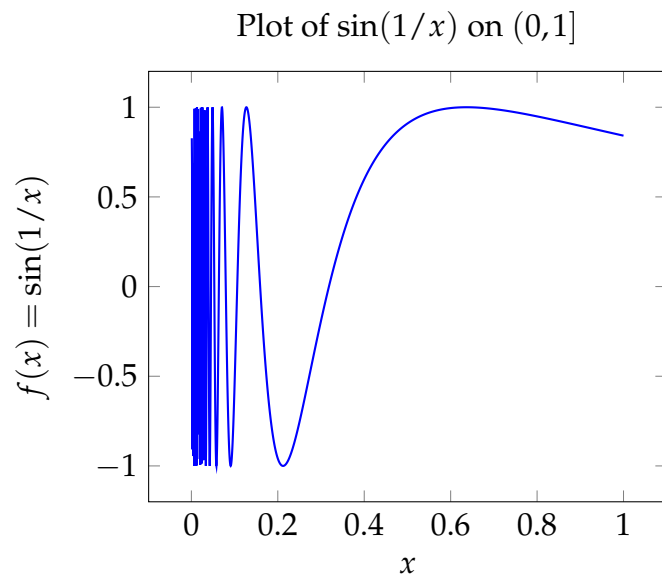
If X is path-connected, then it's connected.

Proof.

Assume X is disconnected. Let $X = A \sqcup B$ for open sets A, B

Let $x \in A$ and $y \in B$. Take any path $f : [a, b] \rightarrow X$ s.t. $f(a) = x$. The image $f([a, b])$ is a connected subspace. Thus $f([a, b]) \subseteq A$, so $f(b) \notin B$, so $f(b) \neq y$. ■

Example: Topologist's Sine Curve



$$S = \{(x, \sin(1/x)) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid x \in (0, 1]\}$$

S is connected since it is the graph of a continuous function. Therefore, $\bar{S}$ is also.

$$\bar{S} = S \cup (\{0\} \times [-1, 1])$$

Suppose there is a path between any point in $(\{0\} \times [-1, 1])$ to a point in S . $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \bar{S}$.

Thus, $f^{-1}(\{0\} \times [-1, 1])$ is a closed subset of $[a, b]$.

Let $m = \sup f^{-1}(\{0\} \times [-1, 1])$. This means that $f(m) \in \{0\} \times [-1, 1]$.

Can re-parametrize the interval $[m, b]$ to get a map

$f : [0, 1] \rightarrow \bar{S}$ satisfying:

$$f(0) = (0, y(0))$$

$$f(t) = (x(t), y(t)) \text{ where } x(t) > 0 \text{ whenever } t > 0$$

Find a sequence of times t_n with $t_n \rightarrow 0$ s.t.

$$y(t_n) = (-1)^n$$

Given some n , can find some $u \in \mathbb{R}$ between 0 and $x(1/n)$ s.t. $\sin(1/u) = (-1)^n$

Since $x(t)$ is continuous, $x(1/u) > u$, $x(0) < u$. By the IVT then there is a $t_n \in [0, 1/n]$ s.t. $x(t_n) = u$.

This means that $y(t_n) = \sin(1/x(t_n)) = \sin(1/u) = (-1)^n$

Conclude that $t_n \rightarrow 0$, but $f(t_n)$ does not converge. Thus f is not continuous. ■

8.2 More on Connected Spaces

Proposition 8.14

Let $\{A_j\}_{j \in J}$ be a collection of connected subspaces of a space X . If $\bigcap_{j \in J} A_j$ is nonempty, then $\bigcup_{j \in J} A_j$ is connected.

Proof.

Let $p \in \bigcap_{j \in J} A_j$ let $Y = \bigcup_{j \in J} A_j$.

Suppose for contradiction that Y is not connected. Then, there are open sets C, D s.t. $Y = (C \cap Y) \cup (D \cap Y)$ and $C \cap Y, D \cap Y$ nonempty, disjoint.

WLOG, $p \in C \cap Y$. Since each A_j is connected and is a subspace of Y we know that $A_j \subset C$ or $A_j \subset D$. But $p \in A_j \cap C$, so $A_j \subseteq C$ for all j . $Y \subset C$, so $Y \cap D = \emptyset$. $\Rightarrow \Leftarrow$ ■

Proposition 8.15

Let X, Y be connected spaces. Then $X \times Y$ is connected.

Proof.

Fix $x \in X$. Then $\{x\} \times Y$ is homeomorphic to Y , so it's connected.

For any $y \in Y$, the spaces $X \times \{y\}$ is connected.

Let $T_y = (\{x\} \times Y) \cup (X \times \{y\})$ be a subspace. It is connected since they intersect non trivially, and they are both connected.

Since $X \times Y = \bigcup_{y \in Y} T_y$. But the intersection of all the T_y is non-empty, so the unions is connected thus $X \times Y$ is connected. ■

Proposition 8.16

Let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be a collection of connected spaces. Then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is connected. (w/ product topology)

Proof.

(in case where $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha = \mathbb{R}^\omega$):

Fix the point $(0,0,0,\dots) \in \mathbb{R}^\omega$.

Given any N , define the subspaces $X_N \subseteq \mathbb{R}^\omega$ consisting of sequences (x_n) satisfying $x_n = 0$ for all $n > N$.

X_N is homeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^N$. X_N is connected since $\mathbb{R}^N$ is.

$\bigcap_{N=1}^{\infty} X_N$ contains 0. Thus, the union is connected.

Claim

$$\overline{\bigcup_{N=1}^{\infty} X_N} = \mathbb{R}^\omega$$

Proof.

Let U be any open set in $\mathbb{R}^\omega$, where $U = U_1 \times U_2 \times \dots \times U_n \times \mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R} \times \dots$

This open set U intersect $\bigcup_{N=1}^{\infty} X_N$:

there is a point in U of the form $(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_m, 0, 0, \dots)$

This point lies in X_M . So every nonempty open set intersects the union, so its closure is $\mathbb{R}^\omega$

Thus since the closure of a connected space is connected $\mathbb{R}^\omega$ is connected.

Definition 8.17: Connected Component

Let X be a space. A connected component of X is a maximal connected subspace of X . If A is connected and $A \supseteq X$ and A is connected, then $A = X$

Example

$X = [0, 1/2) \cup (1/2, 1]$, each of $[0, 1/2)$ and $(1/2, 1]$ is a connected component.

Define an equivalence relation $\sim$ on X by:

$x \sim y$ if there is a connected subspace of X containing both x and y .

Proposition 8.18

Connected components are equivalence classes under $\sim$.

Proof.

Every connected subspace of X intersects exactly one equivalence class. If C_1, C_2 are equivalence class, and $x \in A \cap C_1, y \in A \cap C_2$ for connected set A , then $x \sim y$ so $C_1 = C_2$. So, equivalence classes are connected:

Fix $x_0 \in C$ for equivalence class C . For each $y \in C$ there is a connected A_y containing x_0, y . Know $A_y \subseteq C$, so $\bigcup_{y \in C} A_y = C$.

$\bigcap_{y \in C} A_y$ contains x_0 so C is connected.

If A connected, contains equivalence class C , by def every $z \in A$ is equivalent to every $y \in C$, so $A \subseteq C$ and $A = C$.

X is connected $\iff X$ has exactly one or zero connected components. ■

Connected components are closed, but not necessarily open.

Example

Connected Components of $\mathbb{Q}$ are all singletons. ■

Definition 8.19: Totally Disconnected

A space X is totally disconnected if every point is a connected component.

Definition 8.20: Path Component

Let X be a space. A path component of X is a maximal connected path of X . If A is path and $A \supseteq X$ and A is connected, then $A = X$